



Guangdong Technion

Israel Institute of Technology

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GTIIT

CALCULUS 1 - M

WINTER SEMESTER - 2024

LECTURE 15 - DECEMBER 2ND

1ST PART

- The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus (Section 5.3)
- The substitution Rule (Section 5.5).

Substitution Rule for Antiderivatives

Given any antiderivative F of f ,

$$\int f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x) dx = F(g(x)) + C$$

As a consequence of the Chain Rule for Derivatives, denote by $u = g(x) \Rightarrow \frac{du}{dx} = g'(x)$ and so, we obtain:

$$\int f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x) dx = \int f(u) du = F(g(x)) + C \checkmark$$

This means: It is permissible to operate with dx and du after integral signs as if they were differentials.

Example: Solve $\int \frac{6}{2+3x^2} dx$.

Solution. • Relate the sum of two squares in the denominator

with $\int \frac{1}{1+u^2} du = \arctan(u) + C$.

• So, let us rewrite the given integral:

$$\int \frac{6}{2+3x^2} dx = \int \frac{3 \cdot 2}{2 \cdot \left[1 + \left(\sqrt{\frac{3}{2}}x\right)^2\right]} dx = 3 \int \frac{1}{1 + \left(\sqrt{\frac{3}{2}}x\right)^2} dx$$

• Denote $u = \sqrt{\frac{3}{2}}x \Rightarrow \frac{du}{dx} = \sqrt{\frac{3}{2}}$ and substitute in the integral:

$$\int \frac{6}{2+3x^2} dx = 3 \int \frac{1}{1 + \left(\sqrt{\frac{3}{2}}x\right)^2} dx = 3 \int \frac{1}{1+u^2} \sqrt{\frac{2}{3}} du = \sqrt{6} \arctan(u) + C$$

$$= \sqrt{6} \arctan\left(\sqrt{\frac{3}{2}}x\right) + C \checkmark$$

THE FUNDAMENTAL THEOREM OF CALCULUS

Estimation of the definite integral using absolute minimum and maximum values of f

Lemma: Suppose that $m \leq f(x) \leq M$ for any $x \in [a, b]$, then the definite integral of f on $[a, b]$ is abounded by

$$m(b - a) \leq \int_a^b f(x) dx \leq M(b - a)$$

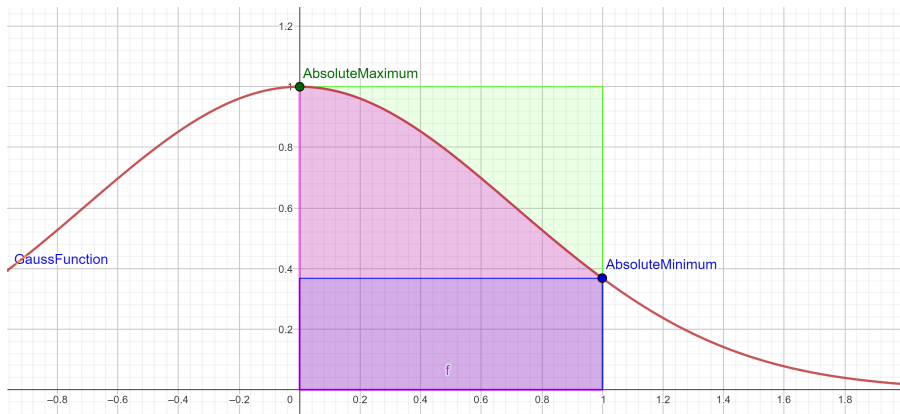
Example 1. a) Find the absolute minimum and maximum values of $f(x) = e^{-x^2}$ on $[0, 1]$.

b) Use part a) to estimate the value of $\int_0^1 e^{-x^2} dx$.

- The function e^{-x^2} has no antiderivative and can only be numerically computed, by approximations.

The Gauss function of extended use in Probability Theory

Area under the curve $f(x) = e^{-x^2}$ on $[0, 1]$



The Gauss function used in Probability

Solution.

- Since f is the composition of e^u with $u = -x^2$, then $f(x) = e^{-x^2}$ is differentiable on $(0, 1)$, and

$$f'(x) = -e^{-x^2} \cdot 2x < 0 \text{ on } (0, 1)$$

then, e^{-x^2} is decreasing on $[0, 1]$

- $f(x) = e^{-x^2}$ on $[0, 1]$ attains the
 - 1 **absolute maximum** on the left endpoint $(0, M) = (0, 1)$
 - 2 **absolute minimum** on the right endpoint $(1, m) = (1, e^{-1})$

Hence, the property $m(b-a) \leq \int_a^b f(x) dx \leq M(b-a)$ says:

$$0.37 \approx e^{-1} \leq \int_0^1 e^{-x^2} dx \leq 1 \quad \checkmark$$

The Gauss function of extended use in Probability Theory

Area under the curve $f(x) = e^{-x^2}$ on $[0, 1]$



$$0.37 \approx e^{-1} \leq \int_0^1 e^{-x^2} dx \leq 1$$

The Gauss function of extended use in Probability Theory

$$f(x) = e^{-x^2}$$

$$f(x) = e^{-x^2} \text{ on } [0, 1]$$



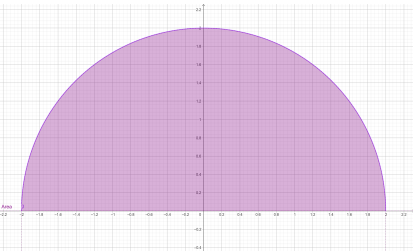
$$0.37 \approx e^{-1} \leq \int_0^1 e^{-x^2} dx \leq 1$$

Example 2. Evaluate the following integrals by interpreting each in terms of areas. Sketch the graphs.

a) $\int_{-2}^2 \sqrt{4 - x^2} dx$

b) $\int_0^3 (x - 1) dx$

Solution. a) $\int_{-2}^2 \sqrt{4 - x^2} dx$ is the area under the curve
 $y = \sqrt{4 - x^2}$ on $[-2, 2]$



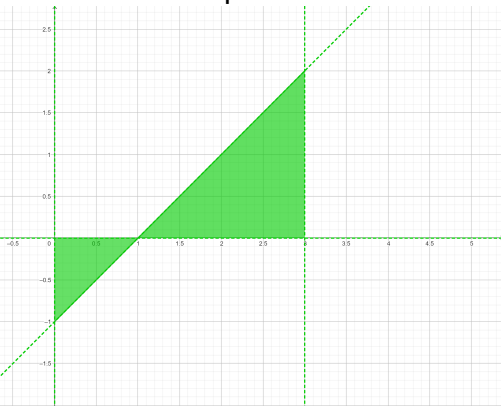
So, $\int_{-2}^2 \sqrt{4 - x^2} dx =$ half of the area the circle $x^2 + y^2 = 4$, centered at $(0, 0)$ of radius $R = 2$

$$\int_{-2}^2 \sqrt{4 - x^2} dx = \frac{1}{2} \pi R^2$$

$$= \frac{1}{2} \pi 2^2 = 2\pi \checkmark$$

Example 2. b) $\int_0^3 (x - 1) dx$

Solution. b) Integral = **negative of the area of the triangle on the left** plus the area of the triangle on the right



$$\Rightarrow \int_0^3 (x - 1) dx = -\frac{1 \times 1}{2} + \frac{2 \times 2}{2} = \frac{3}{2} \checkmark$$

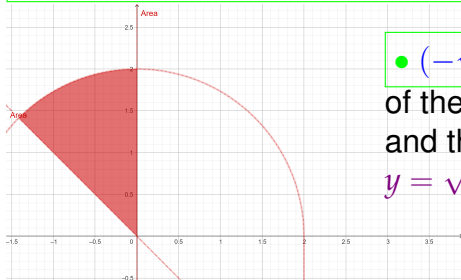
Example 2. c) Evaluate the following integral by interpreting it in terms of areas:

$$\int_{-\sqrt{2}}^0 (\sqrt{4-x^2} + x) dx + \int_0^2 \sqrt{4-x^2} dx$$

Solution. The 1st integral is the

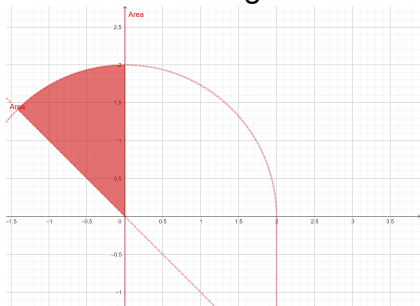
area between the curves $y = \sqrt{4-x^2}$ and $y = -x$

$$\int_{-\sqrt{2}}^0 (\sqrt{4-x^2} + x) dx = \int_{-\sqrt{2}}^0 (\sqrt{4-x^2} - (-x)) dx$$



• $(-\sqrt{2}, \sqrt{2}) =$ intersection
of the line $y = -x$
and the circumference
 $y = \sqrt{4-x^2}$

Then the 1st integral: **area between the two curves**

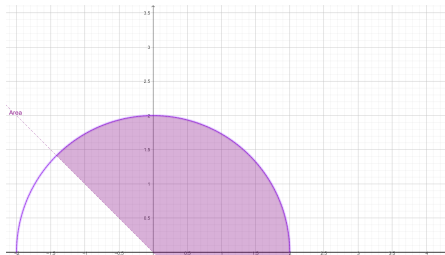


= $\frac{1}{8}$ of the **area** of the circle centered at $(0, 0)$ of radius $R = 2$:

$$\Rightarrow \int_{-\sqrt{2}}^0 (\sqrt{4-x^2} + x) dx = \frac{1}{8}\pi R^2 = \frac{1}{8}\pi 2^2 = \frac{1}{2}\pi \checkmark$$

The area in terms of integrals

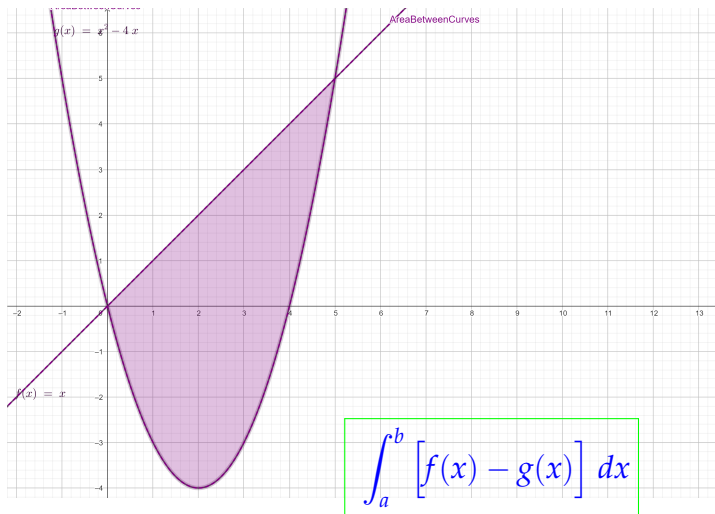
For the whole area:



= **area** of $\frac{3}{8}$ of the circle centered at $(0,0)$ of radius $R = 2$

$$\int_{-\sqrt{2}}^0 (\sqrt{4-x^2} + x) dx + \int_0^2 \sqrt{4-x^2} dx = \frac{3}{8}\pi R^2 = \frac{3}{8}\pi 2^2 = \frac{3}{2}\pi \checkmark$$

Area enclosed by two curves

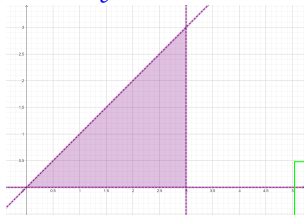


=area enclosed by the two curves $y = f(x)$ and $y = g(x)$

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus

The integral function is an antiderivative of f

Curve $y = t$ from $t = 0$ to $t = x$:



$t = 0$

$t = x$

$$\text{Area of the triangle} = \frac{1}{2} \text{ Base} \times \text{height}$$

$$\int_0^x t \, dt = \frac{1}{2}x^2$$

- The integral from $c = 0$ to x is an antiderivative of $f(x)$:

$$\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_0^x t \, dt \right] = x$$

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus: Example 3.

- $\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_0^x \cos(2t) dt \right] = \cos(2x)$
- $\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_x^4 \sqrt{3t-1} dt \right] = \frac{d}{dx} \left[- \int_4^x \sqrt{3t-1} dt \right] = -\sqrt{3x-1}$
- $\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_x^\pi \tan(t) dt \right] = \frac{d}{dx} \left[- \int_\pi^x \tan(t) dt \right] = -\tan(x)$
- $\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_0^x \ln(3t+1) dt \right] = \ln(3x+1)$

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus

Let f be **continuous** on $[a, b]$, then

- ① The integral function

$F(x) = \int_a^x f(t) dt$ is continuous on $[a, b]$ and

F is an antiderivative of f on (a, b) .

Equivalently, $\frac{d}{dx} \int_a^x f(t) dt = f(x)$ on (a, b) .

- ② If F is any antiderivative, that is, $F' = f$,

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = F(b) - F(a).$$

- ③ $\int_a^x F'(t) dt = F(x) - F(a)$ for any differentiable F on (a, b)

- ④ $F(x) = \int f(x) dx$ means $F'(x) = f(x)$ on an interval

True or false?

Is it true $\int_{-1}^2 \frac{1}{x^2} dx = -\frac{1}{x} \Big|_{x=-1}^{x=2} = -\frac{1}{2} - 1 = -\frac{3}{2}$?

- It can not be true, since

$$f(x) = \frac{1}{x^2} \geq 0 \Rightarrow \int_{-1}^2 \frac{1}{x^2} dx \geq 0.$$

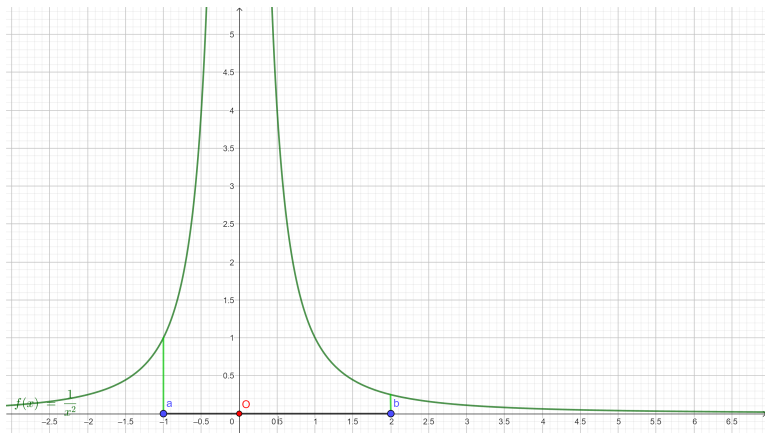
- Moreover, the integral of $f(x) = \frac{1}{x^2}$ on $[-1, 2]$ does not make sense, since $x = 0 \notin \text{Dom}(\frac{1}{x^2})$, so, f is not continuous on $[-1, 2]$
- Hence, the integral is not defined:

~~$$\int_{-1}^2 \frac{1}{x^2} dx = -\frac{1}{x} \Big|_{x=-1}^{x=2}$$~~

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus

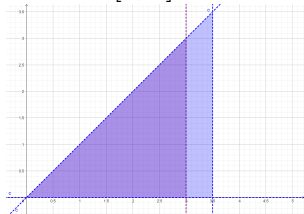
- The integral on $[-1, 2]$ is not defined because $x = 0 \notin \text{Dom}(\frac{1}{x^2})$

~~$$\int_{-1}^2 \frac{1}{x^2} dx = -\frac{1}{x} \Big|_{x=-1}^{x=2}$$~~



The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus

Proof. Let $F(x) = \int_a^x f(t) dt$, then integrate on $[a, x+h]$ and on $[a, x]$ and consider the difference of them:



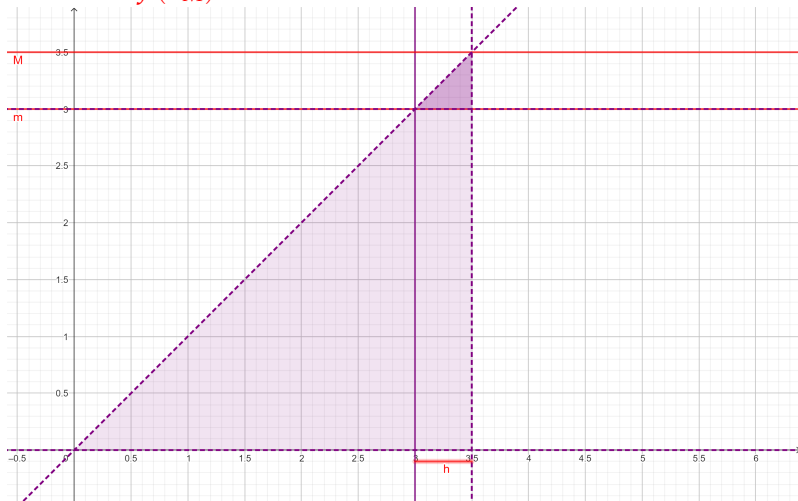
< ----- > $[0, x]$

< ----- > $[0, x+h]$

$$F(x+h) - F(x) = \int_a^{x+h} f(t) dt - \int_a^x f(t) dt = \int_x^{x+h} f(t) dt$$

$$\Rightarrow \frac{F(x+h) - F(x)}{h} = \frac{1}{h} \int_x^{x+h} f(t) dt$$

Since f is continuous on $[x, x + h]$, there exists $m = f(x_m)$ and $M = f(x_M)$ the absolute minimum and maximum:



The area of the rectangle of height m is less than the integral of f , which is less than area of the rectangle of height

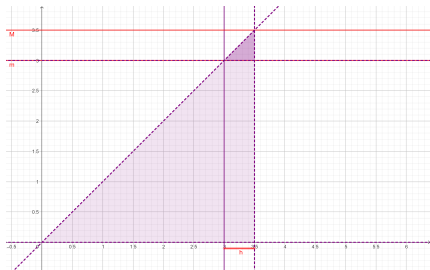
M

Compare the integral with the areas of the rectangles of height m and M :

$$m = f(x_m) \leq f(t) \leq f(x_M) = M$$

$$f(x_m) \cdot h \leq \int_x^{x+h} f(t) dt \leq f(x_M) \cdot h \quad \text{then}$$

$$\Rightarrow f(x_m) \leq \frac{F(x+h) - F(x)}{h} = \frac{1}{h} \int_x^{x+h} f(t) dt \leq f(x_M)$$



The area of the rectangle of height $f(m)$ is less than the integral of f , which is less than area of the rectangle of

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus:

$$F'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} \int_a^x f(t) dt = f(x)$$

Since f is continuous, by the Squeeze's Theorem:

$$\begin{array}{ccccc}
 f(x_m) & \leq & \frac{F(x+h) - F(x)}{h} & \leq & f(x_M) \\
 \downarrow & & \downarrow & & \downarrow \\
 f(x) & = & F'(x) & = & f(x) \checkmark
 \end{array}$$



The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus, part 2:

If F is any antiderivative of a continuous f on $[a, b]$ then

$$\int_a^b f(x) dx = F(b) - F(a).$$

Proof. Let $G(x) = \int_a^x f(t)dt \Rightarrow (\text{part 1}) \Rightarrow G'(x) = f(x) \forall x \in (a, b)$

- If F is any other continuous function on $[a, b]$, which is an antiderivative of f on (a, b) , then F and G differ by a constant: $F(x) = G(x) + C \forall x \in (a, b)$.
- But F and G are both continuous on $[a, b]$ so, taking limits as $x \rightarrow a^+$ and $x \rightarrow b^-$, then:

$$F(a) = \lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} F(x) = \lim_{x \rightarrow a^+} (G(x) + C) = G(a) + C$$

$$\Rightarrow F(a) = G(a) + C \text{ and } F(b) = G(b) + C.$$

Hence, $F(x) = G(x) + C \forall x \in [a, b] (*)$.

- $G(a) = \int_a^a f(t) dt = 0$

- Use $(*)$ then

$$\Rightarrow F(b) - F(a) = [G(b) + C] - [G(a) + C]$$

$$= G(b) - \underbrace{G(a)}_{=0}$$

$$= G(b) = \int_a^b f(t) dt \checkmark$$

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus for a composition

Example 4. Find $F'(x)$ for $F(x) = \int_1^{x^4} \frac{1}{\cos(t)} dt$.

Solution. Let $G(u) = \int_1^u \frac{1}{\cos(t)} dt$ and $u = x^4 \Rightarrow \frac{du}{dx} = 4x^3$,
so use **chain rule**:

$$F'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_1^{x^4} \frac{1}{\cos(t)} dt \right] = \frac{d}{dx} G(u(x)) = G'(u(x)) u'(x)$$

$$= \frac{d}{du} \left[\int_1^u \frac{1}{\cos(t)} dt \right] \frac{du}{dx} = \frac{1}{\cos(u)} 4x^3 = \frac{1}{\cos(x^4)} \cdot 4x^3 \checkmark$$

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus for a composition

Let f be continuous and g differentiable, then

$$\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_a^{g(x)} f(t) dt \right] = f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x)$$

Proof. Let $u = g(x) \Rightarrow \frac{du}{dx} = g'(x)$, use chain rule:

$$F'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_a^{g(x)} f(t) dt \right] = \frac{d}{du} \left[\int_a^u f(t) dt \right] \frac{du}{dx}$$

$$= f(u) \cdot g'(x)$$

$$= f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x) \checkmark$$

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus for a composition

$$\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_a^{g(x)} f(t) dt \right] = f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x)$$

Example 5. compute F' if $F(x) = \int_{\sqrt{x}}^{2(x+1)^3} \sin(t) dt$.

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Solution. } F'(x) &= \frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_{\sqrt{x}}^{2(x+1)^3} \sin(t) dt \right] \\ &= \frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_{\sqrt{x}}^1 \sin(t) dt + \int_1^{2(x+1)^3} \sin(t) dt \right] \\ &= \frac{d}{dx} \left[- \int_1^{\sqrt{x}} \sin(t) dt \right] + \frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_1^{2(x+1)^3} \sin(t) dt \right] \end{aligned}$$

$$= -\sin(\sqrt{x}) \cdot \frac{1}{2\sqrt{x}} + \sin(2(x+1)^3) \cdot 6(x+1)^2 \checkmark$$

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus for a composition

Corollary:

$$\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_{g(x)}^{h(x)} f(t) dt \right] = f(h(x)) \cdot h'(x) - f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x)$$

Proof. Splitting by any value $x = c$ on the domain of f , the given integral may be rewritten as a sum of two terms, for which we can apply the theorem:

$$\int_{g(x)}^{h(x)} f(t) dt = \int_{g(x)}^c f(t) dt + \int_c^{h(x)} f(t) dt = - \int_c^{g(x)} f(t) dt + \int_c^{h(x)} f(t) dt$$

Then, the derivative takes the following form

$$\frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_{g(x)}^{h(x)} f(t) dt \right] = f(h(x)) \cdot h'(x) - f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x) \quad \checkmark$$

The Fundamental Theorem of Calculus

Example 6. Find the intervals of increase and decrease and the local minimum and maximum values of

$$F(x) = \int_{-2}^x t e^{t^2+3} dt \text{ on } (-2, \infty).$$

Solution. • Since $f(t) = t e^{t^2+3}$ is continuous on $[-2, \infty)$, we may apply the theorem.

$$\bullet F'(x) = \frac{d}{dx} \left[\int_{-2}^x t e^{t^2+3} dt \right] = x e^{x^2+3} \text{ on } (-2, \infty)$$

	$(-2, 0)$	0	$(0, \infty)$
$F'(x) = x e^{x^2+3}$	—	0	+
F	<i>decreasing</i>	local minimum	<i>increasing</i>

Local minimum, no maximum

- F has no local maximum on $(-2, \infty)$
- F attains a local minimum at $x = 0$ with value

$$F(0) = \int_{-2}^0 t e^{t^2+3} dt = \frac{1}{2} e^{t^2+3} \Big|_{t=-2}^{t=0} = \frac{1}{2} (e^3 - e^7) \checkmark$$

since

$$\frac{d}{dt} \left[\frac{1}{2} \cdot e^{t^2+3} \right] = t \cdot e^{t^2+3} \Rightarrow F(t) = \frac{1}{2} e^{t^2+3} = \int t \cdot e^{t^2+3} dt$$

The Substitution Rule for Definite Integrals

Let f be continuous on $[a, b]$ and g differentiable on (a, b) ,

then
$$\int_a^b f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x) \, dx = \int_{g(a)}^{g(b)} f(u) \, du$$

Proof. Let F be any antiderivative of f and

$u = g(x) \Rightarrow \frac{du}{dx} = g'(x)$, then by the **Fundamental Theorem**, we have:

$$\bullet \int_a^b f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x) \, dx = F(g(x)) \Big|_a^b = F(g(b)) - F(g(a))$$

$$\bullet \text{ Also, } \int_{g(a)}^{g(b)} f(u) \, du = F(u) \Big|_{g(a)}^{g(b)} = F(g(b)) - F(g(a)) \checkmark$$

The Substitution Rule for Definite Integrals

Example 7. Compute

$$\int_0^4 \sqrt{2x+1} \, dx$$

Solution 1) Find the **antiderivative** and then evaluate the definite integral: we start with the substitution $u = 2x + 1$, then

$$\begin{aligned} \int \sqrt{2x+1} \, dx &= \int \sqrt{u} \frac{du}{2} = \frac{1}{2} \frac{2}{3} u^{3/2} = \frac{1}{3} u^{3/2} \\ &= \frac{1}{3} (2x+1)^{3/2} \end{aligned}$$

Then evaluate the definite integral **using the previous antiderivative**:

$$\int_0^4 \sqrt{2x+1} \, dx = \left. \frac{1}{3} (2x+1)^{3/2} \right|_{x=0}^{x=4} = \frac{1}{3} [9^{3/2} - 1^{3/2}] = \frac{26}{3}$$

Solution 2) Use the Substitution Rule for the definite integral: Substitute

- $g(x) = u = 2x + 1$, then $g(0) = 1$ and $g(4) = 9$,
- $g'(x)dx = 2dx = du$ and $dx = \frac{du}{2}$, then

$$\begin{aligned} & \int_0^4 \sqrt{2x+1} \, dx \\ &= \int_a^b f(g(x)) \cdot g'(x) dx = \int_{g(a)}^{g(b)} f(u) \frac{du}{2} \\ &= \int_1^9 \frac{1}{2} \sqrt{u} \, du = \frac{1}{3} u^{3/2} \Big|_{u=1}^{u=9} \\ &= \frac{1}{3} [9^{3/2} - 1^{3/2}] = \frac{26}{3} \checkmark \end{aligned}$$

The Substitution Rule for Definite Integrals

Example 8. Compute

$$\int_1^e \left[\frac{\ln^2(x)}{x} + \frac{1}{(3-5x)^2} \right] dx$$

Solution. Write the given integral as a sum of two more simple ones:

$$\begin{aligned} & \int_1^e \left[\frac{\ln^2(x)}{x} + \frac{1}{(3-5x)^2} \right] dx \\ &= \int_1^e \frac{\ln^2(x)}{x} dx + \int_1^e \frac{1}{(3-5x)^2} dx = A + B \end{aligned}$$

Compute $A = \int_1^e \frac{\ln^2(x)}{x} dx$ using substitution $u = \ln(x)$ so $du = \frac{1}{x} dx$ and $\ln(1) = 0$, $\ln(e) = 1$:

$$\int_1^e \frac{\ln^2(x)}{x} dx = \int_0^1 u^2$$

$$= \frac{1}{3} u^3 \Big|_{u=0}^{u=1} = \frac{1}{3} \checkmark$$

The Substitution Rule for Definite Integrals

Compute $B = \int_1^e \frac{1}{(3-5x)^2} dx$ using a different substitution:

$g(x) = u = (3-5x) \Rightarrow du = -5 dx \Rightarrow dx = -\frac{1}{5} du$, then

$$g(1) = -2, g(e) = 3-5e$$

Then

$$\begin{aligned} \int_1^e \frac{1}{(3-5x)^2} dx &= -\frac{1}{5} \int_{-2}^{3-5e} u^{-2} du \\ &= +\frac{1}{5} u^{-1} \Big|_{u=-2}^{3-5e} = \frac{1}{5} \left[-\left(\frac{1}{3-5e} \right) + \frac{1}{2} \right] \checkmark \end{aligned}$$

Hence, the given integral is the sum of the two, A+B:

$$\int_1^e \left[\frac{\ln^2(x)}{x} + \frac{1}{(3-5x)^2} \right] dx = A + B$$

$$= \frac{1}{3} + \frac{1}{5} \left[- \left(\frac{1}{3-5e} \right) + \frac{1}{2} \right]$$

$$= \frac{13}{30} + \frac{1}{5} \left(\frac{1}{5e-3} \right) \checkmark$$